Received: 27 July 2020 | Revised: 17 August 2021 | Accepted: 7 September 2021
DOI: 10.1002/job.2565

RESEARCH ARTICLE

WILEY Journal of Organizational Behavior

The paradox of building bridges: Examining countervailing effects of leader external brokerage on team performance

Mee Sook Kim[1] | Jessica R. Methot[2,3] | Won-Woo Park[4] | Stanley M. Gully[5]

[1]Department of Management, California State University, East Bay, Hayward, California, USA
[2]Human Resource Management, School of Management and Labor Relations, Rutgers, The State University of New Jersey, New Brunswick, New Jersey, USA
[3]Department of Management, Business School, University of Exeter, Exeter, UK
[4]College of Business Administration, Seoul National University, Seoul, South Korea
[5]Human Resource Management, School of Labor and Employment Relations, The Pennsylvania State University, State College, Pennsylvania, USA

Correspondence
Mee Sook Kim, California State University, East Bay, 25800 Carlos Bee Blvd, Hayward, CA 94542, USA.
Email: meesook.kim@csueastbay.edu

[Correction added on 19 November 2021, after first online publication: Second affiliation to Jessica R. Methot has been added in this version.]

Summary

Leaders' positions as external brokers in organizational networks—those acting as a bridge between individuals outside the boundaries of their team—can enhance or constrain their effectiveness. Yet, whereas extant research on network brokerage views it as a private good whose benefits accrue directly to the broker, recent research suggests brokering between external communities can serve as both a public good as well as a public liability that can spillover to team members. We integrate network leadership theory with the externalities of network brokerage perspective to examine the countervailing effects of leaders' external brokerage in an information network with peer leaders and executives on team performance. In a sample of 465 team members in 80 teams distributed across 10 sister companies within one conglomerate, we used multilevel structural equation modeling to test our hypotheses. On one hand, we found that leader external brokerage was positively associated with team performance through team members' perceptions of organizational support; on the other hand, we found that leader brokerage is detrimental to team performance by compromising leaders' commitment to their teams. Our results suggest that, while leaders are encouraged to forge connections outside their team to harvest social capital benefits, there are both public benefits and liabilities of team leaders' external networks that can impact team performance.

KEYWORDS
external brokerage, network leadership theory, organizational networks, team performance

1 | INTRODUCTION

As a complement to traditional perspectives of leadership as being rooted in individual traits or behaviors (e.g., charisma and resilience) and contextual factors (e.g., job characteristics), there is a burgeoning literature that conceptualizes leadership as "relational, strategic, global, and a complex social dynamic" (Avolio et al., 2009, p. 423). This "network" approach to leadership acknowledges that leaders are embedded in webs of relationships within and across organizations, and leadership effectiveness rests largely on the structure and quality of social relations between leaders and their team members, peers, and superiors (Carter et al., 2015; Mehra et al., 2006; Uhl-Bien & Arena, 2017). Indeed, this perspective relies on the core principle that not only do leaders build and leverage their relationships, but also that their networks define the embedding social context within which leaders are situated (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006) and that "teams must interact with and receive resources from their embedding environments in order to succeed" (Carter et al., 2020).

Along these lines, recent research has examined the effects of team network structures and leaders' social network positions within these structures (i.e., internal network; Balkundi et al., 2019; Mehra et al., 2006). Because leaders can influence, and are influenced by, the patterns of relationships among themselves and their team members, internal networks are critical for information exchange, developing interdependence, and leadership effectiveness (Balkundi et al., 2009). For instance, meta-analytic results show that teams whose leaders are

 © 2021 John Wiley & Sons, Ltd.

more central in the team's informal networks have higher team viability and performance (Balkundi & Harrison, 2006). However, leaders' networks are also of particular interest when considering the broader community to which a leader is connected (i.e., external networks; Balkundi et al., 2019; Carter et al., 2020; Mehra et al., 2006). Frontline leaders serve as linchpins by occupying network positions that bridge upper level executives and lower level employees, facilitating relationship-building and information exchange with superiors, peer leaders, and subordinates throughout an organization (Mehra et al., 2006). Thus, a critical function for leaders is to serve as a bridge between organizational members external to their team (Burt, 2000), allowing them to transmit useful information and support back to their team members (Galunic et al., 2012). For instance, emerging multi-team systems encourage team leaders to build external ties to gather information from different communities and achieve influence that can trickle down to facilitate team effectiveness (DeChurch & Marks, 2006; Druskat & Wheeler, 2003). Yet, despite recent growth in research on network approaches to leadership, we suggest there are at least three areas that could use further examination.

First, research on external team networks have focused on leader centrality—how many people the leader is connected to outside their team (Mehra et al., 2006; Venkataramani et al., 2010). For instance, Venkataramani et al. (2010) found leaders who were more central in external peer networks were perceived by their subordinates as having greater status in the organization, which improved their relationship quality and, in turn, increased team members' job satisfaction and reduced their turnover intentions. Similarly, Mehra et al. (2006) showed the extent to which leaders were more central in an external friendship network of peer leaders was positively associated with leaders' perceived reputation and their team's performance. However, beyond how many connections they have outside their team, leaders can also fill brokerage positions that are exclusively external to their team, where they span boundaries, or structural holes, between disconnected network members such as peer leaders and executives (Balkundi et al., 2019; Burt, 2005). Indeed, leaders are encouraged "to divide social networks in organizations into non-overlapping groups and to harvest social capital benefits from brokering information and other resources between these groups" (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006, p. 431). Thus, brokers in external networks act as liaisons by connecting different groups (Gould & Fernandez, 1989), thereby generating value by coordinating with other organizational members, gaining access to diverse information from external sources, and signaling support from the broader organization to their team members (Clement et al., 2018).

Next, most of the existing research on network brokerage views it as a private good whose benefits accrue directly to the broker. Indeed, research suggests that brokers experience improved performance, faster rates of promotion, and greater bonus compensation and industry recognition (see Burt, 2005; Kwon et al., 2020 for reviews). Yet, recent research has started to expand this focus to suggest that brokerage can also serve as a public good, whereby a broker's network can have secondary effects on the broker's "neighbors" (Fernandez-Mateo, 2007). For instance, Clement et al. (2018) found that the extent to which individuals served as brokers in a network community had joint positive and negative effects on the contribution of their network neighbors—those external to the focal network—to the performance of work projects, suggesting that the effects of brokerage can spillover to other individuals. Thus, the networks of relationships in which individuals are embedded have utility both for individuals and their teams (Kilduff & Brass, 2010; Kilduff & Tsai, 2003).

Lastly, whereas the research on leaders' networks has generally privileged the benefits, such as increased performance and job satisfaction, improved attitudes toward the organization, and reduced turnover intentions (Tangirala et al., 2007; Venkataramani et al., 2010), the extent to which leaders broker between individuals outside of their immediate teams may have a paradoxical impact on their team members. Indeed, leaders operating in interteam contexts often face trade-offs and competing demands and may choose to promote internal team relations and team goals at the expense of external relations and system goals, or vice versa (Carter et al., 2020; Pittinsky & Simon, 2007). On one hand, research demonstrates that leaders have a direct impact on shaping their team members' shared perceptions and cognitions about the supportiveness of the organizational environment and, ultimately, team performance (Schaubroeck et al., 2011), which can facilitate a positive climate of support. On the other hand, a handful of studies warn that brokering webs of external connections may lead team leaders to marginalize other aspects of their networks or detract from the collective good of their team (Clement et al., 2018; Ibarra et al., 2005), because brokers have more freedom to act than their highly embedded counterparts (Coleman, 1990) and can selectively reduce their dependence on and commitment to their team (Clement et al., 2018).

Therefore, our research unpacks how and why leaders' brokerage positions in an external information network—the extent to which team leaders exclusively broker relationships outside their teams, between other peer leaders or executives to access knowledge, solutions, and advice (Cross et al., 2001; Gould & Fernandez, 1989)—can have a countervailing impact on their team members' performance. Specifically, we integrate network leadership theory (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006) with the externalities of network brokerage perspective (Clement et al., 2018) to explore how leaders' brokerage positions in external networks can serve as both a public good and a public liability that can spillover to enhance or constrain their team's effectiveness. On the one hand, we expect that brokers' access to diverse information and perspectives creates positive externalities by enabling the leader to transmit cues about the team's access to organization-wide resources, which creates a shared perception of broader organizational support for the team that can enhance team performance; on the other hand, we expect that because brokers experience heavy demands from managing cross-community activity yet also have the ability to customize their efforts (Clement et al., 2018), they will reduce their commitment to their team, which can ultimately decrease team performance.

Taken together, our study makes several important contributions to the literature on teams, leadership, and social networks. First, we expand the focus on how brokerage translates into personal gains for the focal actor by examining the externalities of a leader's social capital for other parties (second-order social capital; Galunic et al., 2012) by transmitting "public" value to their team members. In particular, we expand the scope with which brokerage acts as a public good by examining its competing effects on team performance. Team performance is a collective outcome that captures "the challenges of today's organizations, which are increasingly concerned with how colleagues influence each other's work and performance" (Clement et al., 2018, p. 256), and allows us to investigate how brokers' contacts can contribute to the work of others around them. We also address calls to shift the focus of leadership generally (Carter et al., 2020) and brokerage specifically (Halevy et al., 2019) from interpersonal phenomena (Obstfeld, 2017; Simmel, 1950) to intergroup phenomena (Gould & Fernandez, 1989; Hogg et al., 2012; Mehra et al., 1998). Whereas research largely investigates intra-group leadership processes and relationships, we adopt an "external" perspective to study team leadership by conceptualizing teams as "open systems entailing complex interactions with people beyond their borders" (Ancona, 1990, p. 335; Carter et al., 2020). Last, we respond to calls for exploring tradeoffs concerning the effects of social capital (Clement et al., 2018) by investigating the potential liabilities of brokerage in the external network on leader team commitment.

2 | THEORETICAL PERSPECTIVES ON LEADERS' NETWORKS

Developed in response to the recognition that "the perception of and the management of social networks are intrinsic to the leadership role" (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006, p. 420), network leadership theory explores how leaders' cognitions about organizational and interorganizational network structures, as well as their relative positions in and ability to negotiate these social structures, enhances or constrains their effectiveness. Specifically, network leadership theory (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006) acknowledges four principles that are fundamental to understanding how leaders' networks operate to impact their effectiveness.

First, this perspective emphasizes the relationships, or ties, between actors in an effort to move "away from individualist, essentialist and atomistic explanations toward more relational, contextual and systemic understandings" (Borgatti & Foster, 2003, p. 991). As a complement to conventional leadership approaches that focus on leadership as an individual attribute, this perspective locates leadership in the informal relationships, such as information, advice, or friendship, connecting individuals. Second, and relatedly, is that leader behavior, and perceptions of the leader, is impacted by the sets of ties within which leaders are embedded (Granovetter, 1985; Uzzi, 1996). According to the embeddedness principle, economic exchanges are not carried out between strangers but, rather, by individuals involved in sustained relationships; thus, the community of social relations within which leaders are embedded drives their purposeful actions. Third, the web of ties within which individuals are connected constitute social capital—a set of resources inherent in, accessible through, and derived from networks of informal relationships (Adler & Kwon, 2002; Leana & Van Buren, 1999). Leadership, from a network perspective, involves building and leveraging social capital, which confers particular advantages, including access to and mobilization of resources from other communities of organizational members, that translate into enhanced team performance. Last, these webs of relationships can be viewed from a structural perspective, whereby patterns of ties can offer different opportunities and constraints on behavior. For example, teams can be densely connected or be structured into factions (Balkundi & Harrison, 2006; Tröster et al., 2014), and leaders can bridge structural holes to connect to a range of others who themselves are not connected to each other (Balkundi et al., 2009). Thus, the structural position of a leader in an external network not only affects their potential to garner advantages from the broader organization (i.e., a conduit through which resources flow), but also team members' perceptions of a leader's reputation, legitimacy, and access to organizational support and resources (i.e., a prism through which to make inferences and shape perceptions), and this principle extends beyond the immediate social circle of the individual (Podolny, 2001).

But embeddedness in social networks also involves the paradox that social relations, particularly those outside an individual's immediate circle, are difficult to manage and may come at the price of marginality of an internal network (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006). Therefore, whereas network leadership theory lays the groundwork for why leaders' positions in social networks impact their effectiveness, integrating this theory with the externalities of network brokerage perspective (Clement et al., 2018) highlights why leader brokerage in external networks, specifically, can play a critical and competing role in team members' attitudes and behaviors. Generally, research suggests that individuals benefit from having broad network reach because it facilitates access to diverse ideas and resources (Foster et al., 2011). Whereas these benefits have traditionally been viewed as a private good that accrues directly to the broker, the network externalities perspective views brokerage as both a public good and a public liability that can spillover to impact the performance of brokers' team members.

The network externalities lens suggests that positions in social networks not only influence the focal actor's own effectiveness (i.e., first order effects), but also spillover to impact others to whom they are connected (i.e., second order effects; Galunic et al., 2012). Specifically, brokers can span multiple groups of collaborators by connecting to others in distinct network communities, which can jointly have beneficial (i.e., positive externalities) and detrimental (i.e., negative externalities) spillover effects on others to whom the broker is connected, such as their team members. According to this perspective, there are two key drivers of positive and negative externalities: (1) access to unique resources and (2) freedom of action. On the one hand, brokers are positioned at the intersection of different communities across an organization, so they are more likely to reach contacts who differ widely in their knowledge bases. Therefore, brokers are especially likely to reach individuals with diverse information and synthesize it into useful and unique ideas (Rodan & Galunic, 2004). What is more, individuals with networks rich with structural holes “know about, have a hand in, and exercise control over more rewarding opportunities” in organizations (Burt, 1997, p. 343). This should create positive externalities for fellow community members: Because brokers “are attuned to what their own community members know, they can express these ideas in a way that makes them salient to fellow community members” (Clement et al., 2018, p. 256) and channel the flow of resources and rewards from the broader organization to their contacts.

On the other hand, brokers have greater freedom of action than actors who are embedded in dense networks. As a function of their ties to disconnected others, they are less constrained, and enjoy more autonomy and discretion in their behaviors (Coleman, 1990). While this would generally create positive returns for the broker (i.e., a private good), it likely has a negative impact on those to whom the broker is connected. Indeed, due to their independence, “brokers are able to customize the efforts they provide to different groups so as to suit their ultimate goals, while escaping from the mutual supervision and sanctions for noncompliance that they would be subject to if they interacted exclusively with one dense group of individuals” (Clement et al., 2018, p. 254). This should generate negative externalities for fellow community members: Brokers can privilege self-interest and selectively reduce their commitment to their “neighbors” without significant repercussions (Clement et al., 2018).

Because team leaders rely on exposure to diverse information and can vary their levels of commitment to their partners—both of which are valuable inputs for effective team performance (Soda & Zaheer, 2012)—leader brokerage across communities makes them most likely to generate both positive and negative externalities for their team (Galunic et al., 2012). Therefore, we examine the trade-offs associated with leaders' brokerage positions in external information networks among peer leaders and executives on their commitment to their team and their team members' perceptions of support from the organization and, ultimately, on team performance.

3 | POSITIVE EXTERNALITIES OF LEADER BROKERAGE

Consistent with the externalities of brokerage lens, we expect that a leader's brokerage in the external information network with peer leaders and executives will serve as a public good by transmitting advantages back to their team members. Specifically, a leader's position in the external network can positively impact their team's climate for organizational support (TCOS)—the extent to which team members jointly perceive that their organization provides useful information and support, takes their needs into account, and recognizes and rewards their contributions (Bashshur et al., 2011). The externalities of brokerage lens suggests that social processes occurring outside of the team as a function of the individual's brokerage position will spillover to impact the cognitions of team members.

Team leaders often engage in boundary management activities to garner support for their teams, such as acquiring external resources, communicating team interests, or gathering information about the external environment including business priorities (Carter et al., 2020). A leader who acts as a “go-between” in the broader networks that connect them to others throughout the organization is well-positioned to aid their team in constructing a mental model of the external environment, including who does and does not support the team. Specifically, leaders in brokerage positions in an external information network of peer leaders and executives occupy a privileged position because their sources of information belong to different “communities” that tend to have different knowledge and perspectives (Burt, 1992; Clement et al., 2018). Thus, they can extract diverse knowledge, information, advice that represent the perspectives of stakeholders throughout the organization, and advocate for the team's needs to external members (Carter et al., 2020; Marrone, 2010).

Importantly, a leaders' structural position serves as a “prism” for transmitting cues about their reputation and access to information in the organization, which can influence their team members' perceptions of support from the broader organization (Balkundi & Harrison, 2006). Indeed, a leaders' position as a broker affects perceptions of third parties by serving as a cue upon which team members rely to make inferences about their access to valuable information and support from those outside their team (Podolny, 2001). These information, advocacy, and representation benefits establish a more psychologically accessible basis for conceiving of the organization as a source of support for a social group and enable a seemingly “interpersonal” relationship between the individual and the organization (Ashforth et al., 2020). In turn, team members' perceptions of organizational support can converge into a collective judgment about the work environment (Salancik & Pfeffer, 1978) because “their intensive interactions lead community members to share a sense of identity and positive mutual sentiments” (Clement et al., 2018, p. 255). TCOS is positively associated with team-level attitudes and behaviors (Bashshur et al., 2011; Kennedy et al., 2009) and is likely to manifest in teams because they foster a sense of identity and interdependence among members (Alderfer, 1971; Paxton & Moody, 2003). Individuals construe work environments by observing and exchanging social cues from those with whom they interact; thus, team members can develop and reinforce each other's perceptions of organizational support to evolve into a team climate for support (Morgeson & Hoffmann, 1999).

> **Hypothesis 1.** Leader brokerage in the external information network is positively associated with team climate for organizational support (TCOS).

We further expect that leader brokerage in the external information network is positively associated with team performance through its effects on TCOS. Indeed, consistent with the externalities of brokerage and network leadership theory, leaders in brokerage positions should enhance the benefits that spillover to boost the performance of their team for at least three reasons. First, leaders who occupy brokerage positions in an external information network of peer leaders and executives should have access to people who are themselves more influential and "in the know" (Galunic et al., 2012), thus generating perceptions of access to support from the organization that can spillover to improve team performance. Brokers are well positioned to extract diverse information and advice that represent the perspectives of stakeholders throughout the organization, and leaders who bridge across differentiated clusters can coordinate activities and information flow in the organization (cf. Lawrence & Lorsch, 1967) and acquire a distinct type of knowledge of and access to powerful others who control resource flows (e.g., Burt, 2005). The team's shared perception that they have access to these resources and influence will generate second-order social capital benefits for the team's performance.

Second, the brokerage position of a leader sends signals to team members that the organization is a credible, reliable source of support that is worthy of their performance efforts. Indeed, team members who jointly perceive that they have a channel for receiving support may also perceive that they have control over decision rights and have an outlet for communicating with the broader organization because their leaders are able to effectively communicate their team's needs and strategically solicit support from external contacts (Galunic et al., 2012). This shared sense of support can enhance coordination efforts that improve team performance.

Finally, shared perceptions of organizational support should foster a shared feeling of identification toward and consensus about the organization as worthy of investing their efforts (Ashforth et al., 2020). Research suggests individuals reciprocate organizational support they have received by dedicating greater effort and energy to the organization and, as a result, demonstrate better performance (Eisenberger et al., 2001). As such, team members who jointly believe their team has received valuable support from the organization will be more motivated to reciprocate through improved team outcomes (González-Romá et al., 2009). In combination, our expectation with respect to the mediating role of TCOS taps into the notion that brokerage in an external information network uniquely serves as a prism to boost team members' perceptions of the support, values, and perspectives of the broader organization and also maximizes that value by deriving it from disconnected communities of other peer leaders and executives and transmitting it back to the team to boost performance.

Hypothesis 2. Leader brokerage in the external information network has a positive indirect relationship with team performance through TCOS.

4 | NEGATIVE EXTERNALITIES OF LEADER BROKERAGE

At the same time, we also expect that leaders' brokerage positions in an external information network will serve as a public liability by reducing leaders' commitment to their teams. In their theorizing about the negative externalities of brokerage, Clement et al. (2018) directly evoke brokers' varying levels of commitment to their local communities. Specifically, they explain, "whereas members of a dense network must fully commit to collaborations within their immediate network neighborhood or else suffer debilitating damage to their reputations (Coleman, 1990), the brokers' relative freedom affords them more choice in negotiating commitment levels" (p. 254). There are at least two reasons why leaders in brokerage positions in an external network would selectively reduce their commitment to their teams.

First, brokers' independence allows them to privilege their own self-interest above the collective good of their team (Clement et al., 2018). Brokers' network positions give them a unique degree of autonomy and latitude of action (Fernandez-Mateo, 2007; Rider, 2009); they are less constrained than other actors by their intra-community reputation. Their cross-community brokerage offers multiple options for obtaining information and collaborating; this "buffers them from the enforcement of their community's norms, which enables them to reduce commitment to projects' demands and schedules" (Clement et al., 2018, p. 261). Second, there are emotional, cognitive, and behavioral constraints associated with bridging structural holes outside one's team (Balkundi & Harrison, 2006). Extensive cross-community activity requires awareness of and adaptation to different norms and procedures (Krackhardt, 1999); therefore, it is more time consuming than working within a community. As a result, leaders in brokerage positions are spread thinly across projects and investments so they may not have the reserves to provide strong commitment to their team (Clement et al., 2018). Taken together, brokering external information networks may come at the price of marginalizing a leader's team.

Hypothesis 3. Leader brokerage in the external information network is negatively associated with leader team commitment.

We further expect that the negative externalities of leader brokerage extend to team performance through lower leader team commitment. Indeed, the decreased levels of commitment from leaders to their team "is likely to generate negative externalities for other neighborhood members whose ability to create value hinges on a broker's commitment" (Clement et al., 2018, p. 254). For instance, the leader's decreased commitment to the team can cause delays in completing work tasks, conflicts between their focus of attention, and less attention paid to ensuring projects are completed effectively (Clement et al., 2018). Similarly, as leaders in brokerage positions are dividing their time and attention across communities, it can impair their ability to guide their team, coordinate action, resolve conflicts, and efficiently fulfill their team's tasks, damaging their performance. Indeed, Clement et al. (2018) found that a lack of commitment from brokers to their focal community made it difficult to efficiently and effectively coordinate among team members to deliver quality work. Thus, because brokers' commitment is distributed across external individuals and groups, they can undermine the success of their team.

Hypothesis 4. Leader brokerage in the external information network has a negative indirect relationship with team performance through leader team commitment.

Last, we expect that because leader team commitment signals to employees that the leader is dedicated to the success of the team, it is an important driver of employee shared perceptions of organizational support. Leaders play a pivotal role in shaping team members' collective perceptions (Zohar & Luria, 2004) and work-related information and resources are often provided and communicated to team members through the leader (Bashshur et al., 2011; Shanock & Eisenberger, 2006). When leader commitment is reduced as a result of leader brokerage, TCOS should also be negatively impacted, which will hinder team performance. Specifically, team members may find it difficult to accurately assess available organizational support for the team and share consistent perceptions if their leader's attention is stretched across different groups and their leader devotes less time and energy to the team. Furthermore, leaders are often considered organizational agents whose behaviors represent the organization's overall regard of their teams (Eisenberger et al., 2014). When they behave like “one of them” not “one of us,” this can be interpreted as an indication of the team's relatively low standing in the organization as well as the team's limited resources and external support. Their decreased commitment is encoded by the team as a lack of support from the external organization ties the leader has to other peer leaders and executives. Together, we expect that leader brokerage in the external information network will negatively impact team performance by reducing leader team commitment and, in turn, TCOS.

Hypothesis 5. Leader brokerage in the external information network has a negative indirect relationship with team performance through leader team commitment and TCOS.

5 | METHOD

5.1 | Participants and procedure

We collected data from a small-sized industrial conglomerate in South Korea comprising 10 sister companies in a variety of industries, including chemistry, construction, IT, investment, and biotechnology. Each company has several hierarchical levels, including executives, team leaders, and lower level employees (i.e., team members). These companies are governed by common policies and influenced by similar HR practices. Companies recruit new employees conjunctionally every year, provide collective training, then assign new hires to different companies based on internal assessments. Close observation of these companies assured us that they comprise one overarching organization within which team leaders have substantial interactions horizontally and vertically across companies.

The conglomerate had 55 executives, 84 team leaders, and 485 team members as full-time employees. The HR director distributed paper surveys to these employees, who were assured that their participation was voluntary and confidential; 11 executives were excluded because they were located overseas and/or declined to participate. We administered three separate surveys: *Team member* surveys assessed perceptions of team climate for organizational support; *team leader* surveys assessed the external information network, leader commitment to the team, and team performance; and *executive* surveys assessed the external information network. This design allowed us to capture the joint external information network among team leaders and executives and also helped minimize the risk of common method variance (Podsakoff et al., 2003) by separating team member reports of climate for organizational support from team leaders' evaluations of team performance. Participants were asked to seal their surveys in enclosed envelopes and mail them directly to the researchers. Because we are interested in exploring team-level phenomena, each questionnaire was assigned a team identifier, then leader and member responses were matched accordingly.

A total of 44 executives, 84 leaders, and 469 members completed the survey, for response rates of 80%, 100%, and 96%, respectively. Our multiple in-person meetings with all executives and leaders and detailed briefing of the research project prior to the survey helped us promote participation. Teams with fewer than two responding members were excluded as there must be at least two members in a team to ensure emergence of interactions and shared perceptions. Thus, there were 44 executives, 80 teams (ranging from 2 to 10 members), and 465 members in the final sample, and all constructs in our hypothesized framework were modeled at the team level of analysis. On average, 5.58 employees per team responded with a 95% team-level response rate. Demographic data for executives and team leaders, including age, gender, and tenure, were provided by the HR department; team member demographic data were not available. Executives were 100% male, 51 years old on average ($SD = 3.48$), and had worked for the company for an average of 17 years ($SD = 8.14$). Team leaders were 97% male, 47 years old on average ($SD = 4.04$), and had worked for the company for an average of 16 years and for their current team for an average of 5 years ($SD = 2.95$).

5.2 | Measures

Because the survey was conducted in Korea, the original items were translated from English to Korean following Brislin's (1980) translation back-translation procedure.

5.2.1 | Leader brokerage in external information network

We used a name generation technique to derive the composition of team leaders' information networks with their peer leaders and executives (Burt, 1992). Specifically, team leaders and executives were first asked to list peer leaders and executives (within their organizational subunit and in the larger conglomerate) from whom they "seek work-related advice and information." Then, they were asked to indicate the frequency of this interaction by answering the question, "how often do you seek advice and information from this person?" on a scale ranging from 1 (*a few times a year*) to 5 (*every day*). To avoid measurement bias, respondents were not limited in the number of names they could list (Holland & Leinhardt, 1977). We entered the raw data into UCINET 6 (Borgatti et al., 2002) in matrix form containing 44 executives and 80 leaders' responses (124 × 124). To capture the extent to which each team leader held a brokerage position, we dichotomized the data (as the routine used to calculate the brokerage metric relies on binary rather than valued data; Wasserman & Faust, 1994) using the cut-off value of "greater than or equal to 2," such that we treated responses of 1 (a few times a year or less) as a "0" (no tie) and responses of 2 (a few times in 6 months) or more frequently as a "1" (a tie exists).[1]

To assess leader brokerage, we computed Gould and Fernandez's (1989) *total brokerage* metric in UCINET 6 (Borgatti et al., 2002). We used outgoing ties (each respondent's nominations) because the Gould and Fernandez measure examines an ego's relations with actors from the perspective of the ego (Wellman, 1983). This measure counts directional paths involving a single intermediary (i.e., A → broker → C) in a network composed of distinct subgroups (in our case, the same subcompany of the larger conglomerate) and is the sum of the scores across the five types of brokerage position: gatekeeper, representative, coordinator, itinerant broker, and liaison. For example, coordinator brokerage captures the extent to which an actor (B) brokers between two people (A and C) when all three parties are in the same subgroup (in our case, the same subcompany of the larger conglomerate). Given the structure of the organization in which we collected data, we employed total brokerage because (a) our data are partitioned by company memberships, (b) we intended to measure leader external brokerage roles that span within and across company boundaries, and (c) total brokerage captures all the possible ways that a leader brokers two other external contacts (Clement et al., 2018; Spiro et al., 2013). The total brokerage routine generated brokerage scores for each of the 124 leaders and executives in the information network; we then extracted the scores for the 80 team leaders in our core sample, which we modeled as our independent variable.

5.2.2 | Leader commitment to the team

Leaders indicated the extent to which they felt committed to their team with four items from Meyer and Allen's (1997) affective commitment scale. Responses were rated on a 7-point scale ranging from 1 (*strongly disagree*) to 7 (*strongly agree*). Sample items are "This team has a great deal of personal meaning for me" and "I do not feel 'emotionally attached' to this team" (reverse coded).

5.2.3 | Team climate for organizational support (TCOS)

TCOS was measured using five items developed by Kennedy et al. (2009) that tap the extent to which team members collectively perceive they have access to necessary information and resources to perform their work and the extent to which teams are recognized and rewarded for achieving goals. The items are "My team can easily get information on business-unit goals, strategies, and priorities," "My team can easily get information about our suppliers (internal or external)," "My company's managers help provide my team with the resources we need to perform work," "My managers follow through with team recommendations in a timely manner," and "After achieving goals, my team is paid, or is recognized, in a timely manner." Responses were rated on a 7-point scale ranging from 1 (*strongly disagree*) to 7 (*strongly agree*).

Because TCOS is a climate construct, we aggregated team member reports of TCOS to the team level. To justify aggregation, we first conducted a one-way ANOVA based on team membership. Results showed that all individual scores had sufficient variance across teams, $F = 2.20$, $df = 79$, $p < .01$. We next checked within-group interrater agreement ($r_{wg(j)}$; James et al., 1984). The mean $r_{wg(j)}$ was .90 for TCOS, which surpassed the recommended cut-off of .70 (Bliese, 2000; Klein & Kozlowski, 2000). We further calculated intraclass correlation coefficients (Bartko, 1976). The ICC (1) and ICC (2) values were .17 and .55, respectively. These values indicate that there was sufficient agreement within groups and sufficient between-group variance to justify aggregation (James, 1982). Taken together, all indices suggested that there was sufficient variance based on team membership in terms of TCOS to justify aggregation of individual perceptions to the team level.

5.2.4 | Team performance

Team leaders evaluated their respective team's performance using four items adapted from Zellmer-Bruhn and Gibson's (2006) performance scale. The four items were as follows: "This team has achieved high performance," "This team always accomplishes its performance targets," "This team's performance is not as high as I expected," (reverse-coded) and "This team is very competent." We conducted principal component analysis to ensure the four items loaded on a single factor. The result indicated that a single factor had an eigenvalue of 2.94, accounting for 73% of total variance. Factor loadings ranged from .63 to .84.

5.2.5 | Controls

We included several controls in our analyses. We controlled for *leader team tenure* as it influences team commitment, team processes, and relationships with members (Hooper & Martin, 2008). We also controlled for *leader person-organization fit* (PO fit) because it can facilitate a leader's adaptation to a social environment (Afsar, 2016) and determine motivation to engage in prosocial behaviors (Kristof-Brown et al., 2005). Leaders assessed their PO supplementary fit using nine items from Piasentin and Chapman (2007). We controlled for *leader–member exchange (LMX) differentiation* with seven items from Scandura and Graen (1984), because varying LMX quality within a team may lead to inconsistent perceptions of a leader's motives for interaction with those outside the team, potentially impacting TCOS. LMX differentiation was calculated as within-group standard deviation (Le Blanc & González-Romá, 2012). To isolate the unique benefits and constraints of brokerage, we also controlled for *leader in-degree centrality*, which sums the frequency of incoming information ties from executives and peer leaders to a focal leader. We used in-degree centrality (rather than out-degree centrality) because it does not suffer from the limitation of self-report (Kumbasar et al., 1994). Last, we controlled for *prior team performance* because it may impact team leaders' opportunity and motivation to migrate into brokerage positions and because it may influence team members perceptions of organizational support at later time periods. We obtained 8 months prior performance from objective company records, which measured the degree to which each team achieved goals previously agreed upon by both the team and the company. Scores ranged from 0 to 100.

5.3 | Analytic procedure

To examine the distinctiveness of team commitment and team performance measures, which were assessed by leaders, we conducted a confirmatory factor analysis (CFA) using Mplus 8 (Muthén & Muthén, 1998–2017). Results showed that a two-factor model fit the data well ($\chi^2_{[df=19]} = 30.59$, $p = .04$, comparative fit index [CFI] $= .96$, standardized root mean square residual (SRMR) $= .06$, root mean square error of approximation [RMSEA] $= .09$) and showed a better fit than a one-factor model ($\chi^2_{[df=20]} = 157.86$, $p < .01$, CFI $= .59$, SRMR $= .17$, RMSEA $= .29$, $\Delta\chi^2_{[df=1]} = 127.27$, $p < .01$), supporting that these measures assess distinct constructs.

To account for the nested nature of our data (i.e., teams nested within companies), we tested the hypotheses using multilevel structural equation modeling with Mplus 8 (Muthén & Muthén, 1998–2017). This approach allows for simultaneous estimation of the paths in our proposed model. Following previous studies on multilevel mediation (e.g., Koopman et al., 2016; Lanaj et al., 2014), we used a Monte Carlo simulation with 20,000 replications to obtain confidence intervals for the estimated indirect effects.

6 | RESULTS

Table 1 includes the means, standard deviations, and correlations among study variables.

We estimated a model where the effects of leader brokerage on team performance are fully mediated, with paths from (a) leader brokerage to TCOS, (b) leader brokerage to leader team commitment, (c) leader team commitment to TCOS, (d) TCOS to team performance, (e) the control variables to the mediators, and (f) the control variables to team performance. Following MacKinnon et al. (2002), we included the direct effect of leader brokerage on team performance when modeling mediation. The model fit the data well ($\chi^2_{[df=3]} = 9.75$, $p = .02$, CFI $= .92$, SRMR $= .08$, RMSEA $= .17$). Although RMSEA is higher than the conventional cut-off (i.e., 0.06; Hu & Bentler, 1999), Kenny et al. (2015) noted that RMSEA tends to be higher for models with small degrees of freedom and small sample sizes and it would be inappropriate to reject the model because of RMSEA. Results from our multilevel structural equation modeling, which depicts direct and indirect effects, are shown in Figure 1 and Table 2.

Hypothesis 1 predicted that leader brokerage would have a positive association with team climate for organizational support. As shown in Table 2, this hypothesis was supported ($\gamma = .30$, $p = .014$). This suggests that the extent to which leaders broker between other leaders and executives outside their team is associated with greater team member perceptions that their team is supported by the organization. Hypothesis 2 predicted an indirect relationship between leader brokerage and team performance through TCOS. In support of this hypothesis, results showed there was a positive indirect relationship between leader brokerage and team performance through TCOS; the standardized indirect effect was .13, $p = .031$, and the 95% confidence interval (CI) did not include zero, [.021, .264].

Hypothesis 3 predicted that leader brokerage would have a negative association with leader team commitment. This hypothesis was supported: Leader brokerage was negatively related to leader team commitment ($\gamma = -.27$, $p < .001$). This suggests that leaders report lower levels of commitment to their teams when they engage in more brokering between peer leaders and executives in the external information network. In support of Hypothesis 4, results also showed a negative indirect relationship between leader brokerage and team performance through leader team commitment (standardized indirect effect $= -.07$, $p = .057$, 95% CI [$-.157$, $-.010$]). In other words, when leaders occupy broker positions in the external information network and, thus, report feeling less committed to their team, the team has lower ratings of performance.

Hypothesis 5 predicted that leader brokerage would have a negative indirect effect on team performance via leader team commitment and TCOS in sequence. This hypothesis was supported (standardized indirect effect $= -.03$, $p = .070$, 95% CI [$-.083$, $-.002$]). This suggests that leaders who are less committed to their teams as a result of brokerage in the external information network are more likely to have team members who perceive less organizational support for the team and ultimately have lower team performance.[2] Although not hypothesized, we also note that the total effect of leader external brokerage on team performance was nonsignificant (standardized effect $= .10$, $p = .95$).

6.1 | Supplemental analyses

Although we assessed our model constructs from multiple sources and grounded our predictions in theory, we recognize that each

TABLE 1 Means, standard deviations, and correlations

Variable	M	SD	1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9
1. Leader team tenure	4.88	2.95									
2. Leader PO fit	4.68	0.58	−.06	(.68)							
3. LMX differentiation	0.91	0.42	.14	−.04	(.94)						
4. Leader indegree centrality	32.65	20.51	−.08	−.05	.03**						
5. Prior team performance	83.24	10.48	−.03	.04	.12	.12					
6. Leader external brokerage	95.10	172.10	−.04	.01	.16	.55	.16				
7. TCOS	4.62	0.64	−.11	.16	−.33**	.08	.04	.19	(.85)		
8. Leader team commitment	5.93	0.63	−.17	.35**	.02	−.05	.08	−.22	.16	(.75)	
9. Team performance	4.87	1.07	.04	.20†	−.02	.05	.15	.02	.36**	.32**	(.88)

Note: $N = 80$ teams. Cronbach's alphas are reported in parentheses on the diagonal.
Abbreviations: LMX, leader–member exchange; PO, person-organization; TCOS, team climate for organizational support.
†p <.10 (two-tailed). *p < .05 (two-tailed). **p < .01 (two-tailed).

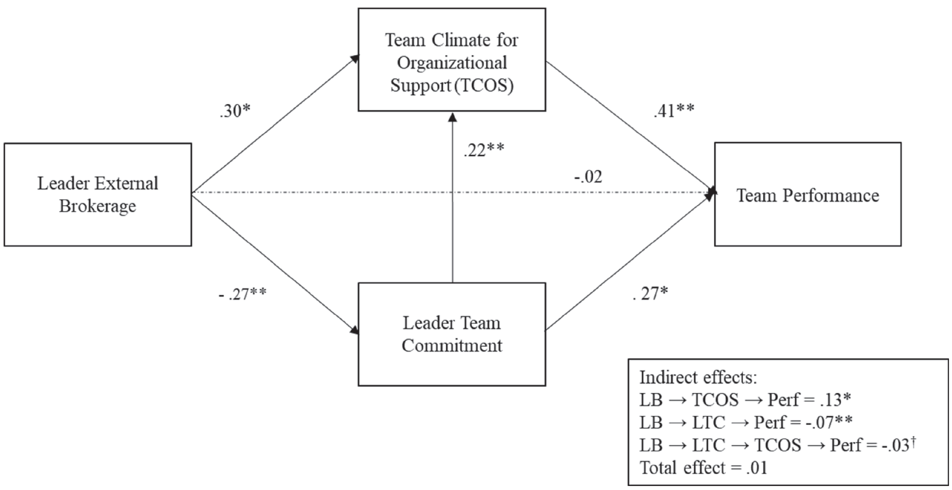

FIGURE 1 Results of hypothesized multilevel structural equation model of leader external brokerage on team performance. *Note*: Relationships between the control variables (pervious team performance, leader team tenure, leader PO fit, and LMX differentiation) and all endogenous variables were estimated but not reported in Figure 1. All path coefficients are standardized. LB, leader external brokerage; LTC, leader team commitment; TCOS, team climate for organizational support; Perf, team performance. †p <.10, *p < .05, **p < .01 (two-tailed)

variable is measured at the same point in time, leading to possible concerns about reverse causality. To mitigate the concerns, we tested two alternative models. In running these models, we followed the Analytic Approach detailed above, including the same control variables. Specifically, we first tested the indirect relationship between leader brokerage and team performance where the causal direction of the two mediators was reversed such that TCOS predicted leader team commitment, and team performance was positioned as the dependent variable. Results showed that although the model fit the data well ($\chi^2_{[df = 3]} = 9.75$, $p = .03$, CFI = .92, SRMR = .08, RMSEA = .17), the indirect relationship was nonsignificant (standardized indirect effect = .02, $p = .23$). Next, we tested a model where team performance served as the independent variable, TCOS predicted leader team commitment as the mediators, and leader brokerage served as the dependent variable. Results showed that the model had an acceptable fit with the data ($\chi^2_{[df = 3]} = 16.25$, $p < .01$, CFI = .92, SRMR = .07, RMSEA = .24) but the indirect relationship was nonsignificant (standardized indirect effect = −.01, $p = .92$). This analysis lends partial support to our theorizing—namely, that leader brokerage theoretically and empirically impacts our mediators, leader team commitment and TCOS, and the dependent variable, team performance.

7 | DISCUSSION

The social network approach to leadership provides “a set of theories and methods with which to articulate and investigate, with greater precision and rigor, the wide variety of relational perspectives implied by contemporary leadership theories” (Carter et al., 2020, p. 597). In

TABLE 2 Multilevel SEM results

Variables	Standardized parameter estimate (*SE*)
Dependent variable: Leader team commitment	
Leader team tenure	−0.222 (0.077)**
Leader PO fit	0.153 (0.185)
LMX differentiation	0.059 (0.085)
Leader indegree centrality	0.063 (0.124)
Prior team performance	−0.092 (0.182)
Leader external brokerage	−0.271 (0.069)**
Dependent variable: TCOS	
Leader team tenure	−0.010 (0.051)
Leader PO fit	0.055 (0.072)
LMX differentiation	−0.439 (0.083)**
Leader indegree centrality	−0.128 (0.141)
Prior team performance	−0.081 (0.048)
Leader external brokerage	0.301 (0.123)*
Leader team commitment	0.219 (0.083)**
Dependent variable: Team performance	
Leader team tenure	0.108 (0.123)
Leader PO fit	−0.037 (0.101)
LMX differentiation	0.098 (0.070)
Leader indegree centrality	0.049 (0.121)
Prior team performance	0.072 (0.061)
Leader external brokerage	−0.017 (0.110)
Leader team commitment	0.268 (0.117)*
TCOS	0.414 (0.116)**
Mediation test	
LB → TCOS → Perf	0.125 (0.058)*
LB → LTC → Perf	−0.073 (0.027)**
LB → LTC → TCOS → Perf	−0.025 (0.014)†

Note: $N = 80$ teams.
Abbreviations: LMX, leader–member exchange; PO, person-organization; TCOS, team climate for organizational support.
†*p* < .10 (two-tailed).
**p* < .05 (two-tailed). ***p* < .01 (two-tailed).

this study, we contribute to this burgeoning literature by integrating network leadership theory (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006) with the brokerage externalities perspective (Clement et al., 2018; Galunic et al., 2012) to examine the extent to which leader brokerage in the external information network with peer leaders and executives can have a countervailing impact on their teams. We help shift focus from brokerage as a private good that generates value exclusively for the broker to explore how it can serve as both a public good and a public liability for a leader's team. Taken together, we point a spotlight on the paradoxical effects that leaders' positions as brokers outside their teams can have for their team members' performance, particularly because the structural position of a leader in an external network not only acts a conduit through which resources flow, but also a prism through which team members make inferences about their environment.

7.1 | Theoretical implications

Our study contributes to the teams, leadership, and social networks literatures in several meaningful ways. Specifically, our findings speak to and advance three explanations for why network approaches are especially well suited for studying leadership (see Carter et al., 2015): That leadership is relational, situated in context, and patterned. First, the relational leadership perspective has shifted focus from leadership as personological (i.e., residing in characteristics of individuals) to viewing leadership as a relational process of influence connecting two or more people (e.g., Uhl-Bien, 2006). Our study extends this focus to acknowledge that leaders not only impact and are impacted by their direct ties to their internal team members, but that they are impacted by the larger social system in which they are embedded. These external ties are critical in defining the social fabric of an organization and in generating social capital for leaders themselves. Although the social capital derived from brokerage has been largely considered a private good, recent studies have begun investigating the secondary effects on surrounding neighbors (second-order social capital) to emphasize the public aspect of social capital (e.g., Sparrowe & Liden, 2005). Applying this perspective to network leadership, we demonstrate that leaders' networks of external relationships generate both positive and negative externalities. Also, by integrating network leadership theory and the externalities of brokerage lens, we advance both theories by demonstrating that individuals are impacted both by their formal position (i.e., leadership) and by their informal position (i.e., brokerage) to influence their teams.

Second, leaders do not behave in isolation; rather, they are situated in context. In other words, this perspective operates under that tenet that not only do leaders participate in their own relationships but also that networks define the embedding social context within which leaders are situated (Borgatti & Foster, 2003; Carter et al., 2015). As a result, the constellation of relationships in which leaders are embedded, both within and outside their team, have a certain social utility—in that they provide opportunities and constraints—for individuals and groups (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006). By drawing from the externalities of brokerage theory, our research contributes to this dialog by demonstrating that leaders situated in sparse organizational networks (those characterized by structural holes) will experience unique contextual opportunities and constraints that can spillover over to impact their team's performance. For instance, leadership behaviors can have a direct impact on shaping subordinates' perceptions (Schaubroeck et al., 2011) that in turn predicts team processes and performance (González-Romá et al., 2009). Along these lines, we find that leaders' external networks serve as cues to their team members that help shape their perceptions about the support they receive from the organizational environment. These effects are only uncovered when the external context is included as a driving factor of leaders' attitudes and behaviors.

Third, leadership is patterned, in that "unique experiences and processes characterize the leadership relationships among different dyads" (Carter et al., 2015, p. 598). While this has tended to focus on phenomena such as leader–member exchange to define the variations in relationship quality among leaders and followers, our study adopts the view that relationship patterns can be captured by the structure of a leader's external network and their position in this network. Specifically, leaders who fill structural holes in the networks external to their team (i.e., brokers) have distinct experiences compared with other common patterns of relationships, such as centrality. Whereas having a large network (i.e., high degree centrality) is associated with certain benefits (e.g., efficient access to information) and constraints (e.g., depletion and accountability; Methot et al., 2016), leaders in brokerage positions uniquely access diverse information from disconnected communities and have more freedom of action (Clement et al., 2018). Leaders who broker across structural holes in their external community can harvest diverse information and support, which is essential to leadership effectiveness and plays a key role in shaping subordinates' perceptions and attitudes (Balkundi & Kilduff, 2006; Carter et al., 2020). What is more, compared with brokering among only in-group members, the measure we employed—total brokerage (Gould & Fernandez, 1989)—uniquely captures the liabilities involved in brokering across disparate communities, which requires navigating the different norms, demands, and jargon of different groups simultaneously (Krackhardt, 1999). These variations in the patterns of leaders' external networks mean they have more autonomy to customize their commitment to their team but are also sending signals to the team about what is happening in the larger environment, which ultimately impact team performance.

It is also important to note that we did not find a significant direct effect from leader brokerage to team performance. While surprising on its face, this finding helps to support our theorizing that the effects of leaders' brokerage positions in an external network operate largely through second-order mechanisms to impact team performance, rather than through the potentially tangible first-order social capital they transmit. Thus, our results contribute to network leadership theory by emphasizing the role of team member perceptions and network externalities as key drivers of the effects of leader brokerage on team effectiveness.

7.2 | Practical implications

As team leaders now face more unforeseen challenges and non-routine demands, their ability to utilize resources available outside of their own teams has become imperative to successful leadership (Kim & Yukl, 1995). Our results suggest that leaders whose external networks span structural holes could enhance team members' perceptions of the supportiveness of the organization and ultimately team performance. This has important implications for the training and development initiatives organizations adopt for aspiring or current leaders. For example, whereas leadership development programs traditionally focus on boosting human capital—that is, knowledge, skills, and leadership competencies—recent research suggests that shifting focus to network-enhancing leadership development can improve individuals' and teams' leadership capacity (Cullen-Lester et al., 2017; Day, 2001). Along these lines, we encourage human resource managers and senior leaders to incorporate skills training related to building and leveraging social capital as an integral part of leadership development programs. We also recommend introducing leaders to tools for accurately diagnosing their personal, professional, and developmental networks (Higgins, 2004; Ibarra, 2002; Thomas, 2009) and assessments to geared toward evaluating and developing their relationship building skills (Higgins et al., 2007).

Even more relevant to our study, whereas "social capital" is defined by its general function, leadership development programs should also incorporate a focus on revealing specific network structures. Indeed, research suggests that "the social capital of brokerage is the theoretical foundation for training programs intended to enhance leadership skills in building bridges across organization silos" (Burt & Ronchi, 2007, p. 1160). Importantly, however, organizations should not advocate for leaders to exclusively hold brokerage positions, because of the associated tradeoffs, including the potential marginalization of their teams. As Burt and Ronchi (2007) highlight, "closed" or dense networks are necessary complements to those ripe with structural holes, because closure "encourages the trust and collaboration needed to deliver the value of bridges" (p. 1160), whereas "unrestrained brokerage can create organization chaos, manifest in errors such as resources allocated to conflicting goals and units in the same organization competing against one another" (p. 1161). Therefore, it is critical for organizational leaders to design training programs for leaders that both uncover the network structure of social capital and reflect the risks and benefits of brokerage versus closure, which can ultimately improve performance and rates of promotion (Burt & Ronchi, 2007; Janicik & Larrick, 2005).

7.3 | Limitations and future research directions

Despite the contributions of this study, some limitations exist. First, we tested our hypotheses using cross-sectional data. Although social network theories imply that network structure causally precedes individual and team performance (Baldwin et al., 1997), it is possible there is a reciprocal relationship between network structure and job performance (Sparrowe et al., 2001). To mitigate this concern, we controlled for prior team performance to preclude the possibility of a reciprocal relationship between a network position and job performance as it is possible that some leaders occupy broker positions in the external network because their teams performed well. We also tested an alternative model where team performance predicts leader brokerage through leader team commitment and TCOS. However, our results should be interpreted with appropriate caution, and future research should investigate the underlying temporal nature of leader network positions and team performance.

Another limitation is that we used data collected from Korean companies. Asian companies have a different work culture than those in many other cultures, placing greater emphasis to collectivism and vertical relationships (Christie et al., 2003). Different cultures may lead employees to engage in different patterns of networking behaviors and perceptions of such behaviors (Chen et al., 2011). Given the cultural differences, leaders and subordinates may react differently to leaders' privileged structural positions in the network and develop different attitudes. It would be meaningful if future research examined whether our findings are consistent across other cultural settings.

Future research could also investigate boundary conditions that may determine when the externalities of leader brokerage are likely to be beneficial or harmful to their team. For example, leader personality (Fang et al., 2015), leader prototypicality (van Knippenberg & Hogg, 2003), or organizational culture (Park & Luo, 2001) may affect the degree to which external brokerage undermines leader team commitment or leader willingness to prioritize team interest over personal interest. It would also be beneficial to investigate leader external brokerage in conjunction with intra-team network properties. That way, we could examine whether the benefits and/or costs of leader external brokerage escalate or abate depending on a leader's network position within a team or network patterns among members. Furthermore, while we used the Gould and Fernandez total brokerage measure because we intended to capture all possible types of leader brokerage roles, it could be helpful to unpack when and why the more nuanced brokerage roles (e.g., gatekeeper and liaison) should be considered separately. For example, passing information from outside to inside the social boundary (gatekeeper) should involve different benefits and costs compared to passing information from inside to outside (representative). Depending on a leader's goal and interpersonal skills or intergroup relations, leaders may prioritize certain brokerage roles.

Finally, although we looked at a unitary information network in this study, leaders' brokerage in multiplex networks of information and friendship could entail distinct tensions (Shah et al., 2017). As friendship ties comprise emotional content that is ephemeral, difficult to communicate, and more reciprocal (Elmer et al., 2017), leaders may experience greater stress and burden when they broker between individuals with neither personal nor work-related interactions. On the contrary, brokerage in the multiplex network should allow leaders to not only have access to information but also garner emotional support from various groups.

8 | CONCLUSION

Leaders who serve as a bridge across individuals and groups outside the boundaries of their team are functioning in contexts that "present challenges and tensions for leaders that go beyond the demands of leadership within isolated teams" (Carter et al., 2020). Our study advances the paucity of research on intergroup leadership by examining how and why leader brokerage in an external information network with peer leaders and executives affects their teams. Our findings suggest that leader brokerage in the external information network functions as a public good as leaders are better able to transmit organization-wide support to their team members to improve performance. At the same time, however, brokering in the external network also serves as a public liability by weakening leader team commitment by redirecting their attention and energy, hampering team performance. Our findings contribute to future efforts to investigate leadership through the lens of social networks and offer potentially new arenas through which to examine the externalities of leaders' social capital.

ACKNOWLEDGMENTS

We are grateful to Associate Editor Violet Ho and the two anonymous reviewers for their guidance and constructive suggestions throughout the review process. We would also like to thank Jean Phillips and Yuan Jiang for providing helpful comments on an earlier version of this manuscript. This paper also benefited from helpful comments and ideas from the audience at the 2019 Sunbelt Conference. One of the authors, Stan Gully, passed away in 2017 but had played an important role in developing the model for this paper.

ENDNOTES

[1] We adopted Borgatti and Quintane's (2018) recommendations for choosing a dichotomization threshold, specifically, Step 2 Approach 2, which maximizes the correlation between the original valued matrix and the dichotomized matrix. With this approach, "the data are distorted by dichotomizing, but the dichotomized matrix still retains a very high resemblance to the original data" (p. 7). For the information network, the correlation between the original valued data and dichotomized data with a cut point "greater than or equal to 2" was $r = .93$ ($p < .10$). In comparison, selecting the cut points "greater than or equal to 1" and "greater than or equal to 3" produced lower correlations ($r = .89$, $p > .10$ and $r = .90$, $p < .01$, respectively). We also tested our model using "1" and "3" as a cut point and found that while some results remained consistent several indirect effects were non-significant (details available upon request from the first author). We concluded the threshold of "greater than or equal to 2" maximizes the correlation between the original valued data and the dichotomized data and retains theoretical precision.

[2] To determine whether our results compared across different brokerage measures, we substituted alternative brokerage measures as the independent variable in our model. All variables were computed using UCINET and all alternative models were tested following the same analytical procedure. First, we tested *betweenness centrality*—the number of times a node lies on the shortest path between other nodes—which is a global measure of brokerage because it takes long chains of indirect relations into account. The pattern of findings did not substantively change. Second, we tested *constraint* using the structural hole routine in UCINET—an index that measure the extent to which an actor's contacts are redundant—whereby lower constraint captures a metric similar to brokerage. None of the hypothesized relationships were supported. Third, we tested *honest brokerage*—an index that reflects the frequency with which a node directly connects pairs of nodes that are not themselves directly connected—which captures brokerage at the local, triadic level (rather than more global measures like betweenness centrality). The pattern of results did not substantively change. So, in support the validity of our measure of brokerage, there were some complementary patterns in the results across various measures of brokerage. Yet, the Gould and Fernandez measure is the most theoretically and empirically appropriate for the data in our study. Details of the analysis and results are available upon request from the first author.

DATA AVAILABILITY STATEMENT

The data that support the findings of this study are available on request from the corresponding author, MSK. The data are not publicly available due to their containing information that could compromise the privacy of research participants.

ORCID

Mee Sook Kim https://orcid.org/0000-0003-3582-976X

REFERENCES

Adler, P. S., & Kwon, S. W. (2002). Social capital: Prospects for a new concept. *Academy of Management Review*, *27*, 17–40. https://doi.org/10.5465/amr.2002.5922314

Afsar, B. (2016). The impact of person-organization fit on innovative work behavior: The mediating effect of knowledge sharing behavior. *International Journal of Health Care Quality Assurance*, *29*, 104–122. https://doi.org/10.1108/IJHCQA-01-2015-0017

Alderfer, C. P. (1971). Effect of individual, group, and intergroup relations on attitudes toward a management development program. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *55*, 302–311. https://doi.org/10.1037/h0031536

Ancona, D. G. (1990). Outward bound: Strategic for team survival in an organization. *Academy of Management Journal*, *33*, 334–365. https://doi.org/10.5465/256328

Ashforth, B. E., Schinoff, B. S., & Brickson, S. L. (2020). "My company is friendly," "Mine's a Rebel": Anthropomorphism and shifting organizational identity from "What" to "Who". *Academy of Management Review*, *45*, 29–57. https://doi.org/10.5465/amr.2016.0496

Avolio, B. J., Walumbwa, F. O., & Weber, T. J. (2009). Leadership: Current theories, research, and future directions. *Annual Review of Psychology*, *60*, 421–449. https://doi.org/10.1146/annurev.psych.60.110707.163621

Baldwin, T. T., Bedell, M. D., & Johnson, J. L. (1997). The social fabric of a team-based MBA program: Network effects on student satisfaction and performance. *Academy of Management Journal*, *40*, 1369–1397. https://doi.org/10.5465/257037

Balkundi, P., Barsness, Z., & Michael, J. H. (2009). Unlocking the influence of leadership network structures on team conflict and viability. *Small Group Research*, *40*, 301–322. https://doi.org/10.1177/1046496409333404

Balkundi, P., & Harrison, D. A. (2006). Ties, leaders, and time in teams: Strong inference about network structure's effects on team viability and performance. *Academy of Management Journal*, *49*, 49–68. http://doi.org/10.5465/AMJ.2006.20785500

Balkundi, P., & Kilduff, M. (2006). The ties that lead: A social network approach to leadership. *Leadership Quarterly*, *17*, 419–439. http://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2006.01.001

Balkundi, P., Wang, L., & Kishore, R. (2019). Teams as boundaries: How intra-team and inter-team brokerage influence network changes in knowledge-seeking networks. *Journal of Organizational Behavior*, *40*, 325–341. https://doi.org/10.1002/job.2331a

Bartko, J. J. (1976). On various intraclass correlation reliability coefficients. *Psychological Bulletin*, *83*, 762–765. http://doi.org/10.1037/0033-2909.83.5.762

Bashshur, M. R., Hernández, A., & González-Romá, V. (2011). When managers and their teams disagree: A longitudinal look at the consequences of differences in perceptions of organizational support. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *96*, 558–573. http://doi.org/10.1037/a0022675

Bliese, P. D. (2000). Within-group agreement, non-independence, and reliability: Implications for data aggregation and analysis. In K. J. Klein & S. W. Kozlowski (Eds.), *Multi-level theory, research, and methods in organizations: Foundations, extensions, and new directions* (Vol. 3) (pp. 349–381). Jossey-Bass. http://doi.org/10.12691/education-3-1-14

Borgatti, S. P., Everett, M. G., & Freeman, L. C. (2002). *UCINET for Windows: Software for social network analysis*. Analytic Technologies.

Borgatti, S. P., & Foster, P. C. (2003). The network paradigm in organizational research: A review and typology. *Journal of Management*, *29*, 991–1013. https://doi.org/10.1016/S0149-2063(03)00087-4

Borgatti, S. P., & Quintane, E. (2018). Techniques: Dichotomizing a network. *Connect*, *38*, 1–11. https://doi.org/10.21307/connections-2018-002

Brislin, R. W. (1980). Translation and content analysis of oral and written material. In H. C. Triandis & J. W. Berry (Eds.), *Handbook of cross-cultural psychology* (pp. 389–444). Allyn & Bacon.

Burt, R. S. (1992). *Structural holes: The social structure of competition*. Harvard University Press. https://doi.org/10.4159/9780674029095

Burt, R. S. (1997). The contingent value of social capital. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *42*, 339–365. https://doi.org/10.2307/2393923

Burt, R. S. (2000). The network structure of social capital. *Research in Organizational Behavior*, *22*, 345–423. https://doi.org/10.1016/S0191-3085(00)22009-1

Burt, R. S. (2005). *Brokerage and closure: An introduction to social capital*. Oxford University Press.

Burt, R. S., & Ronchi, D. (2007). Teaching executives to see social capital: Results from a field experiment. *Social Science Research*, *36*, 1156–1183. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.ssresearch.2006.09.005

Carter, D. R., Cullen-Lester, K. L., Jones, J. M., Gerbasi, A., Chrobot-Mason, D., & Nae, E. Y. (2020). Functional leadership in interteam contexts: Understanding 'what' in the context of why? Where? When? And who? *The Leadership Quarterly*, *31*, 101378. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2019.101378

Carter, D. R., DeChurch, L. A., Braun, M. T., & Contractor, N. S. (2015). Social network approaches to leadership: An integrative conceptual review. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *100*, 597–622. http://doi.org/10.1037/a0038922

Chen, Y., Friedman, R., Yu, E., & Sun, F. (2011). Examining the positive and negative effects of guanxi practices: A multi-level analysis of guanxi practices and procedural justice perceptions. *Asia Pacific Journal of Management*, *28*, 715–735. http://doi.org/10.1007/s10490-009-9176-x

Christie, P. M. J., Kwon, I. W. G., Stoeberl, P. A., & Baumhart, R. (2003). A cross-cultural comparison of ethical attitudes of business managers: India Korea and the United States. *Journal of Business Ethics*, *46*, 263–287. http://doi.org/10.1023/A:1025501426590

Clement, J., Shipilov, A., & Galunic, C. (2018). Brokerage as a public good: The externalities of network hubs for different formal roles in creative organizations. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *63*, 251–286. https://doi.org/10.1177/0001839217708984

Coleman, J. S. (1990). *The foundations of social theory*. Harvard University Press.

Cross, R., Borgatti, S. P., & Parker, A. (2001). Beyond answers: Dimensions of the advice network. *Social Networks*, *23*, 215–235. https://doi.org/10.1016/S0378-8733(01)00041-7

Cullen-Lester, K. L., Maupin, C. K., & Carter, D. R. (2017). Incorporating social networks into leadership development: A conceptual model and evaluation of research and practice. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *28*, 130–152. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2016.10.005

Day, D. V. (2001). Leadership development: A review in context. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *11*, 581–613. https://doi.org/10.1016/S1048-9843(00)00061-8

DeChurch, L. A., & Marks, M. A. (2006). Leadership in multiteam systems. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *91*, 311–329. http://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.91.2.311

Druskat, V. U., & Wheeler, J. V. (2003). Managing from the boundary: The effective leadership of self-managing work teams. *Academy of Management Journal*, *46*, 435–457. http://doi.org/10.2307/30040637

Eisenberger, R., Armeli, S., Rexwinkel, B., Lynch, P. D., & Rhoades, L. (2001). Reciprocation of perceived organizational support. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *86*, 42–51. https://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.86.1.42

Eisenberger, R., Shoss, M. K., Karagonlar, G., Gonzalez-Morales, M. G., Wickham, R. E., & Buffardi, L. C. (2014). The supervisor POS–LMX–subordinate POS chain: Moderation by reciprocation wariness and supervisor's organizational embodiment. *Journal of Organizational Behavior*, *35*, 635–656. https://doi.org/10.1002/job.1877

Elmer, T., Boda, Z., & Stadtfeld, C. (2017). The co-evolution of emotional well-being with weak and strong friendship ties. *Network Science*, *5*, 278–307. https://doi.org/10.1017/nws.2017.20

Fang, R., Landis, B., Zhang, Z., Anderson, M. H., Shaw, J. D., & Kilduff, M. (2015). Integrating personality and social networks: A meta-analysis of personality, network position, and work outcomes in organizations. *Organization Science*, *26*, 1243–1260. https://doi.org/10.1287/orsc.2015.0972

Fernandez-Mateo, I. (2007). Who pays the price of brokerage? Transferring constraint through price setting in the staffing sector. *American Sociological Review*, *72*, 291–317. https://doi.org/10.1177/000312240707200208

Foster, P., Borgatti, S. P., & Jones, C. (2011). Gatekeeper search and selection strategies: Relational and network governance in a cultural market. *Poetics*, *39*, 247–265. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.poetic.2011.05.004

Galunic, C., Ertug, G., & Gargiulo, M. (2012). The positive externalities of social capital: Benefiting from senior brokers. *Academy of Management Journal*, *55*, 1213–1231. https://doi.org/10.5465/amj.2010.0827

González-Romá, V., Fortes-Ferreira, L., & Peiró, J. M. (2009). Team climate, climate strength and team performance. A longitudinal study. *Journal of Occupational & Organizational Psychology*, *82*, 511–536. http://doi.org/10.1348/096317908X370025

Gould, R. V., & Fernandez, R. M. (1989). Structures of mediation: A formal approach to brokerage in transaction networks. *Sociological Methodology*, *19*, 89–126. http://doi.org/10.2307/270949

Granovetter, M. (1985). Economic action and social structure: The problem of embeddedness. *American Journal of Sociology*, *91*, 481–510. https://doi.org/10.1086/228311

Halevy, N., Halali, E., & Zlatev, J. J. (2019). Brokerage and brokering: An integrative review and organizing framework for third party influence. *Academy of Management Annals*, *13*, 215–239. https://doi.org/10.5465/annals.2017.0024

Higgins, M. (2004). *Developmental network questionnaire*. Harvard Business School Publishing.

Higgins, M. C., Chandler, D. E., & Kram, K. E. (2007). Developmental initiation and developmental networks. In B. R. Ragins & K. E. Kram (Eds.), *The handbook of mentoring at work: Theory, research and practice* (pp. 349–372). Sage.

Hogg, M. A., Van Knippenberg, D., & Rast, D. E. (2012). Intergroup leadership in organizations: Leading across group and organizational boundaries. *Academy of Management Review*, *37*, 232–255. https://doi.org/10.5465/amr.2010.0221

Holland, P. W., & Leinhardt, S. (1977). A dynamic model for social networks. *Journal of Mathematical Sociology*, *5*, 5–20. http://doi.org/10.1080/0022250X.1977.9989862

Hooper, D. T., & Martin, R. (2008). Beyond personal leader–member exchange (LMX) quality: The effects of perceived LMX variability on employee reactions. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *19*, 20–30. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2007.12.002

Hu, L. T., & Bentler, P. M. (1999). Cutoff criteria for fit indexes in covariance structure analysis: Conventional criteria versus new alternatives. *Structural Equation Modeling: A Multidisciplinary Journal*, *6*, 1–55. https://doi.org/10.1080/10705519909540118

Ibarra, H. (2002). *Network assessment exercise: Abridged MBA version*. Harvard Business School Publishing.

Ibarra, H., Kilduff, M., & Tsai, W. (2005). Zooming in and out: Connecting individuals and collectivities at the frontiers of organizational network research. *Organization Science*, *16*, 359–371. http://doi.org/10.1287/orsc.1050.0129

James, L. R. (1982). Aggregation bias in estimates of perceptual agreement. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *67*, 219–229. http://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.67.2.219

James, L. R., Demaree, R. G., & Wolf, G. (1984). Estimating within-group interrater reliability with and without response bias. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *69*, 85–98. http://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.69.1.85

Janicik, G. A., & Larrick, R. P. (2005). Social network schemas and the learning of incomplete networks. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, *88*, 348–364. https://doi.org/10.1037/0022-3514.88.2.348

Kennedy, F. A., Loughry, M. L., Klammer, T. P., & Beyerlein, M. M. (2009). Effects of organizational support on potency in work teams. *Small Group Research*, *40*, 72–93. http://doi.org/10.1177/1046496408326744

Kenny, D. A., Kaniskan, B., & McCoach, D. B. (2015). The performance of RMSEA in models with small degrees of freedom. *Sociological Methods & Research*, *44*, 486–507. https://doi.org/10.1177/0049124114543236

Kilduff, M., & Brass, D. J. (2010). Organizational social network research: Core ideas and key debates. *Academy of Management Annals*, *4*, 317–357. https://doi.org/10.5465/19416520.2010.494827

Kilduff, M., & Tsai, W. (2003). *Social networks and organizations*. Sage. https://doi.org/10.4135/9781849209915

Kim, H., & Yukl, G. (1995). Relationships of self-reported and subordinate-reported leadership behaviors to managerial effectiveness and advancement. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *6*, 361–377. https://doi.org/10.1016/1048-9843(95)90014-4

Klein, K. J., & Kozlowski, S. W. J. (2000). *Multilevel theory, research, and methods in organizations: Foundations, extensions, and new directions*. Josey-Bass.

Koopman, J., Lanaj, K., & Scott, B. A. (2016). Integrating the bright and dark sides of OCB: A daily investigation of the benefits and costs of helping others. *Academy of Management Journal*, *59*, 414–435. https://doi.org/10.5465/amj.2014.0262

Krackhardt, D. (1999). The ties that torture: Simmelian tie analysis in organizations. In S. B. Bacharach, S. B. Andrews, & D. Knoke (Eds.), *Research in the sociology of organizations* (pp. 183–210). JAI Press.

Kristof-Brown, A. L., Zimmerman, R. D., & Johnson, E. C. (2005). Consequences of individuals' fit at work: A meta-analysis of person-job, person-organization, person-group, and person-supervisor fit. *Personnel Psychology*, *58*, 281–342. https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1744-6570.2005.00672.x

Kumbasar, E., Rommey, A. K., & Batchelder, W. H. (1994). Systematic biases in social perception. *American Journal of Sociology*, *100*, 477–505. https://doi.org/10.1086/230544

Kwon, S. W., Rondi, E., Levin, D. Z., De Massis, A., & Brass, D. J. (2020). Network brokerage: An integrative review and future research agenda. *Journal of Management*, *46*, 1092–1120. https://doi.org/10.1177/0149206320914694

Lanaj, K., Johnson, R. E., & Barnes, C. M. (2014). Beginning the workday yet already depleted? Consequences of late-night smartphone use and sleep. *Organizational Behavior and Human Decision Processes*, *124*, 11–23. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.obhdp.2014.01.001

Lawrence, P. R., & Lorsch, J. W. (1967). Differentiation and integration in complex organizations. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *12*, 1–47. https://doi.org/10.2307/2391211

Le Blanc, P. M., & González-Romá, V. (2012). A team level investigation of the relationship between leader–member exchange (LMX) differentiation, and commitment and performance. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *23*, 534–544. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2011.12.006

Leana, C. R., & Van Buren, H. J. (1999). Organizational social capital and employment practices. *Academy of Management Review*, *24*, 538–555. https://doi.org/10.5465/amr.1999.2202136

MacKinnon, D. P., Lockwood, C. M., Hoffman, J. M., West, S. G., & Sheets, V. (2002). A comparison of methods to test mediation and other intervening variable effects. *Psychological Methods*, *7*, 83–104. https://doi.org/10.1037/1082-989X.7.1.83

Marrone, J. A. (2010). Team boundary spanning: A multilevel review of past research and proposals for the future. *Journal of Management*, *36*, 911–940. https://doi.org/10.1177/0149206309353945

Mehra, A., Dixon, A. L., Brass, D. J., & Robertson, B. (2006). The social network ties of group leaders: Implications for group performance and leader reputation. *Organization Science*, *17*, 64–79. http://doi.org/10.1287/orsc.1050.0158

Mehra, A., Kilduff, M., & Brass, D. J. (1998). At the margins: A distinctiveness approach to the social identity and social networks of underrepresented groups. *Academy of Management Journal*, *41*, 441–452. https://doi.org/10.5465/257083

Methot, J. R., Lepine, J. A., Podsakoff, N. P., & Christian, J. S. (2016). Are workplace friendships a mixed blessing? Exploring tradeoffs of multiplex relationships and their associations with job performance. *Personnel Psychology*, *69*, 311–355. http://doi.org/10.1111/peps.12109

Meyer, J. P., & Allen, N. J. (1997). *Commitment in the workplace: Theory, research, and application*. Sage.

Morgeson, F. P., & Hoffmann, D. A. (1999). The structure and function of collective constructs: Implications for multilevel research and theory development. *Academy of Management Review*, *8*, 547–558. https://doi.org/10.5465/amr.1999.1893935

Muthén, L. K., & Muthén, B. O. (1998-2017). *Mplus user's guide* (8th ed.). Muthén & Muthén.

Obstfeld, D. (2017). *Getting new things done: Networks, brokerage, and the assembly of innovative action*. Stanford University Press.

Park, S. H., & Luo, Y. (2001). Guanxi and organizational dynamics: Organizational networking in Chinese firms. *Strategic Management Journal*, *22*, 455–477. https://doi.org/10.1002/smj.167

Paxton, P., & Moody, J. (2003). Structure and sentiment: Explaining emotional attachment to group. *Social Psychology Quarterly*, *66*, 34–47. https://doi.org/10.2307/3090139

Piasentin, K. A., & Chapman, D. S. (2007). Perceived similarity and complementarity as predictors of subjective person-organization fit. *Journal of Occupational and Organizational Psychology*, *80*, 341–354. https://doi.org/10.1348/096317906X115453

Pittinsky, T. L., & Simon, S. (2007). Intergroup leadership. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *18*, 586–605. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2007.09.005

Podolny, J. M. (2001). Networks as the pipes and prisms of the market. *American Journal of Sociology*, *107*, 33–60. https://doi.org/10.1086/323038

Podsakoff, P. M., MacKenzie, S. B., Lee, J., & Podsakoff, N. P. (2003). Common method biases in behavioral research: A critical review of the literature and recommended remedies. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *88*, 879–903. https://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.88.5.879

Rider, C. I. (2009). Constraints on the control benefits of brokerage: A study of placement agents in US venture capital fundraising. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *54*, 575–601. https://doi.org/10.2189/asqu.2009.54.4.575

Rodan, S., & Galunic, D. G. (2004). More than network structure: How knowledge heterogeneity influences managerial performance and innovativeness. *Strategic Management Journal*, *25*, 541–562. https://doi.org/10.1002/smj.398

Salancik, G. R., & Pfeffer, J. (1978). A social information processing approach to job attitudes and task design. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *23*, 224–253. http://doi.org/10.2307/2392563

Scandura, T. A., & Graen, G. B. (1984). Moderating effects of initial leader–member exchange status on the effects of a leadership intervention. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *69*, 428–436. http://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.69.3.428

Schaubroeck, J., Lam, S. S., & Peng, A. C. (2011). Cognition-based and affect-based trust as mediators of leader behavior influences on team performance. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *96*, 863–871. https://doi.org/10.1037/a0022625

Shah, N. P., Parker, A., & Waldstrøm, C. (2017). Examining the overlap: Individual performance benefits of multiplex relationships. *Management Communication Quarterly*, *31*, 5–38. https://doi.org/10.1177/0893318916647528

Shanock, L. R., & Eisenberger, R. (2006). When supervisors feel supported: Relationships with subordinates' perceived supervisor support, perceived organizational support, and performance. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *91*, 689–695. https://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.91.3.689

Simmel, G. (1950). *The sociology of Georg Simmel*. Free Press.

Soda, G., & Zaheer, A. (2012). A network perspective on organizational architecture: Performance effects of the interplay of formal and informal organization. *Strategic Management Journal*, *33*, 751–771. https://doi.org/10.1002/smj.1966

Sparrowe, R. T., & Liden, R. C. (2005). Two routes to influence: Integrating leader-member exchange and network perspectives. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, *50*, 505–535. http://doi.org/10.2189/asqu.50.4.505

Sparrowe, R. T., Liden, R. C., Wayne, S. J., & Kraimer, M. L. (2001). Social networks and the performance of individuals and groups. *Academy of Management Journal*, *44*, 316–325. http://doi.org/10.2307/3069458

Spiro, E. S., Acton, R. M., & Butts, C. T. (2013). Extended structures of mediation: Re-examining brokerage in dynamic networks. *Social Networks*, *35*, 130–143. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.socnet.2013.02.001

Tangirala, S., Green, S. G., & Ramanujam, R. (2007). In the shadow of the boss's boss: Effects of supervisors' upward exchange relationships on employees. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *92*, 309–320. http://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.92.2.309

Thomas, A. C. (2009). *Hierarchical models for relational data* [unpublished doctoral dissertation. Harvard University.

Tröster, C., Mehra, A., & van Knippenberg, D. L. (2014). Structuring for team success: The interactive effects of network structure and cultural diversity on team potency and performance. *Organizational Behavior and Human Decision Processes*, *124*, 245–255. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.obhdp.2014.04.003

Uhl-Bien, M. (2006). Relational leadership theory: Exploring the social processes of leadership and organizing. *The Leadership Quarterly*, *17*, 654–676. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.leaqua.2006.10.007

Uhl-Bien, M., & Arena, M. (2017). Complexity leadership: Enabling people and organizations for adaptability. *Organizational Dynamics*, *46*, 9–20. https://doi.org/10.1016/j.orgdyn.2016.12.001

Uzzi, B. (1996). The sources and consequences of embeddedness for the economic performance of organizations: The network effect. *American Sociological Review*, *61*, 674–698. https://doi.org/10.2307/2096399

van Knippenberg, D., & Hogg, M. A. (2003). A social identity model of leadership effectiveness in organizations. In B. M. Staw & R. M. Kramer (Eds.), *Research in organizational behavior* (Vol. 25) (pp. 243–295). Elsevier. http://doi.org/10.1016/S0191-3085(03)25006-1

Venkataramani, V., Green, S. G., & Schleicher, D. J. (2010). Well-connected leaders: The impact of leaders' social network ties on LMX and embers' work attitudes. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *95*, 1071–1084. http://doi.org/10.1037/a0020214

Wasserman, S., & Faust, K. (1994). *Social network analysis: Methods and applications*. Cambridge University Press. https://doi.org/10.1017/CBO9780511815478

Wellman, B. (1983). Network analysis: Some basic principles. *Sociological Theory*, *1*, 155–200. https://doi.org/10.2307/202050

Zellmer-Bruhn, M., & Gibson, C. (2006). Multinational organization context: Implications for team learning and performance. *Academy of Management Journal*, *49*, 501–518. https://doi.org/10.5465/amj.2006.21794668

Zohar, D., & Luria, G. (2004). Climate as a social-cognitive construction of supervisory safety practices: Scripts as proxy of behavior patterns. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, *89*, 322–333. https://doi.org/10.1037/0021-9010.89.2.322

AUTHOR BIOGRAPHIES

Mee Sook Kim is an assistant professor of management at California State University, East Bay. She received her PhD in human resource management from Rutgers, The State University of New Jersey. Her research interests include teams, leadership, social networks, and organizational citizenship behavior.

Jessica R. Methot is an associate professor of human resource management in the School of Management and Labor Relations at Rutgers University and a distinguished research professor at the University of Exeter, UK. She earned her PhD from the University of Florida. Her research focuses on the multidimensionality of social networks in organizations and their functional and dysfunctional consequences.

Won-Woo Park is a professor at Seoul National University. He earned his PhD from the University of Pittsburgh and has served as a vice president of the Korean Academy of Management and a president of the Korean Academy of Business Ethics. His recent research focuses on teamwork, trust, efficacy, goal orientation, and organizational culture. He worked for many conglomerates including Samsung, Hyundai, LG, GS, and Daewoo either as a counselor or as an outside director.

Stanley M. Gully was professor of human resource management in the School of Labor and Employment Relations at Penn State, USA. He held a PhD degree in industrial/ organizational psychology and was a SIOP Fellow. His research examined leadership, team effectiveness, motivation, recruitment, and training.

How to cite this article: Kim, M. S., Methot, J. R., Park, W.-W., & Gully, S. M. (2022). The paradox of building bridges: Examining countervailing effects of leader external brokerage on team performance. *Journal of Organizational Behavior*, *43*(1), 36–51. https://doi.org/10.1002/job.2565